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Gender, Class and Citizenship in the Comparative Analysis of Welfare State Regimes:
Theoretical and Methodological Issues

Author(s): Julia S. O'Connor

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Gender, class and citizenship in the comparative analysis of welfare state regimes: theoretical and methodological issues*

ABSTRACT

The objective of this paper is to integrate class, citizenship and gender in a comparative approach to the analysis of welfare state regimes. I argue that the incorporation of gender into the analysis entails a reassessment of the conventional conception of citizenship, a broadening of conventional definitions of political mobilization and participation and a modification of the welfare state regime concept used in the mobilization of power resources research approach. Furthermore, the concept of de-commodification or insulation from the pressures of the labour market, which is central to the analysis of welfare state regimes, must be supplemented by the concept of personal autonomy or insulation from personal and/or public dependence. To date comparative research has concentrated on the relationship between the labour market and the state with little attention to the family aspect of this tripartite relationship. The concept of personal autonomy remedies this imbalance since it relates directly to the articulation of relations of reproduction and production.

This paper focuses on theoretical and methodological issues associated with the incorporation of gender into the comparative analysis of welfare states. The impetus for this project arises from a number of concerns related to welfare state research: First, there is an absence of gender analysis in almost all comparative research while most studies that focus on gender are not comparative. Second, while change in the principle of distribution from class to citizenship is analyzed in much comparative research, it is not self-evident that citizenship rights are gender-neutral. Consequently, the incorporation of gender into the analysis raises questions concerning taken for granted assumptions about the meaning of citizenship and, in particular, concerning the relationship between formal citizenship status and the exercise of citizenship rights. The premise on which this paper is based is that we

cannot hive off 'gender and the welfare state' as a women's issue. Gender is integral to the understanding of the welfare state and its importance is increasing due to changes in the structure of the labour market and welfare state restructuring associated with resource constraints.¹ Similar comments are applicable to structuring around race, which is particularly salient in some welfare states.² These comments are not meant to imply that gender, race and class are independent structuring mechanisms. On the contrary, analysis must focus on their interaction in the structuring of welfare state regimes.

Welfare state regimes refer to clusters of more or less distinct welfare state types in terms of the principles of stratification and the basis of social rights on which social policy is built. These principles, which result in qualitatively different arrangements amongst state, market and family, are reflected in the configuration of policies relating to

targeted versus universalistic programs, the conditions of eligibility, the quality of benefits and services and, perhaps most importantly, the extent to which employment and working life are encompassed in the state's extension of citizen rights.³

Esping-Andersen has identified three regime types: social democratic as exemplified by Sweden and Norway, liberal as exemplified by the USA, Canada and Australia and conservative-corporatist or status-based as exemplified by Germany, France and Italy. The social democratic regime is unique in its emphasis on universalism, its strong role for the state, its integration of social and economic policy and its emphasis on the primacy of full employment. The liberal regime is characterized by state intervention which is clearly subordinate to the market. It has a relatively strong emphasis on income and/or means-tested programmes, and while there may be a commitment to universalism it is universalism with an equal opportunity focus. The key characteristic of the conservative-corporatist welfare state regime is the linkage of rights to class and status through a variety of social insurance schemes. There is a strong commitment to the maintenance of the traditional family and social services tend to be provided only when the family's ability to cope is exhausted.⁴

Recent comparative studies of welfare states, in particular those concerned with the relationship between the mobilization of power resources by social classes and the modification of market inequities, have focused on differences amongst welfare state regimes rather than differences in expenditure, which was the focus of most earlier comparative studies. However, analysis continues to be concentrated on the class-citizenship dimension of the stratification system with little or no attention to gender and/or race.⁵ In contrast, most feminist analyses of welfare states are not comparative. While there is a common concern with women's relationship to the welfare state in

these analyses, significant differences in emphasis are evident amongst them. Single country studies based on British, US, Canadian and Australian experience tend to emphasize the oppressive characteristics of the welfare state for women. In contrast, the few comparative studies available and those based on Scandinavian experience, while recognizing the subordination of women, emphasize the possibilities for empowerment of women through the welfare state.⁶ This difference in focus is not surprising when put in the context of the variation in welfare state regimes and points to the importance of a comparative approach.

The objective of this paper is to develop a comparative analytical approach incorporating class, citizenship and gender. To this end I outline some of the key issues arising in three sets of literature: (i) Classical and contemporary literature on citizenship and social class; (ii) Recent literature on gender and citizenship and (iii) Feminist analyses of issues associated with gender, citizenship and labour market participation in social democratic welfare state regimes. Finally, drawing on these literatures and related studies I discuss some of the key theoretical and methodological issues associated with the incorporation of gender into the comparative analysis of welfare state regimes.

CITIZENSHIP AND SOCIAL CLASS

Most contemporary discussions of citizenship take as their source the essay 'On Citizenship and Social Class' presented by T. H. Marshall in 1949.⁷ On the basis of British history Marshall divided the development of citizenship into three stages: Civil citizenship, relating to liberty of the person and property rights, is dated from the eighteenth century with the development of the judicial system; Political citizenship, relating primarily to the right to vote and to organize, is dated from the nineteenth century; and Social citizenship, which relates to the rights to economic welfare and security, is dated from the twentieth century with the extension of the educational system and the development of the welfare state. Marshall saw the extension of social citizenship rights as a process, aimed not just at class abatement as was the extension of civil and political rights, but a process directed towards the modification of 'the whole pattern of social inequality' within capitalist society.⁸ This is achieved through the extension of social services – a means of distribution which operates outside the labour and capital markets.

Marshall's periodization is neither universal nor evolutionary. What is clear from his and subsequent analyses is that the development of citizenship rights is a process of expansion of the rights of membership and participation in societal institutions within capitalist societies.⁹ This process of expansion is achieved through collective

struggle. The actors in this struggle are identified by Marshall, and most recent analysts, as representatives of social classes.¹⁰ The contemporary analysts of the welfare state who accord the strongest niche to citizenship and its juxtaposition with class are those who focus on the mobilization of power resources by the working class and its allies. These analysts focus on the possibilities within the political system for the modification of market inequities.¹¹ In a later part of the paper I discuss the implication of incorporating gender into this analysis.

CITIZENSHIP AND GENDER

Despite references to the distinct treatment of married women in the development of citizenship rights, Marshall implies that citizenship, which is 'bestowed on those who are full members of a community', is an undifferentiated status.¹² Two problems can be identified with this perspective. The first problem is that not all of those who possess citizenship status 'are equal with respect to the rights and duties with which the status is endowed'.¹³ Indeed Marshall recognized barriers to the exercise of civil rights.¹⁴ A cursory review of the exercise of political citizenship rights indicates that several groups, including women, are still grossly under-represented in that formal political system and at the decision-making level in public policy bodies in all countries. Even in the Scandinavian countries, where they are relatively well represented in the parliamentary system, women have been greatly under-represented in the corporatist decision-making bodies, which were until recently very influential. In other words, participatory citizenship rights have a gender dimension. In addition, gender differences in social citizenship rights can be identified in all OECD countries, though the extent of the difference varies considerably. A tiered system of access to social rights, comprised of a predominantly female stratum of welfare or social assistance clients who are granted benefits on the basis of need, generally household need, and a predominantly male stratum with individual benefit entitlements, associated with labour force participation, has been identified in several countries and is particularly marked in liberal welfare state regimes.¹⁵ A third category of beneficiary is comprised of those family members whose eligibility is dependent on the social insurance contributions of a family member in the paid labour force, in other words those with indirect social rights, who are predominantly women and children.

These differences indicate the formal citizenship status does not always accord with actual status, in other words formal citizenship does not always imply full social membership.¹⁶ As Barbalet has pointed out civil and political rights may be universal in principle but

have a class bias in practice.¹⁷ Social rights may also fall into this category and a gender and/or race bias may exist singly, or in interaction with one another, or with a class bias, in relation to all elements of citizenship. The exercise of citizenship rights is not independent of class position, rather it is often dependent on economic and/or educational resources and such resources as time and energy. Similarly, while the achievement of formal citizenship rights was significant for women, gender neutrality in the realization of these rights cannot be assumed.

The second and more fundamental problem associated with Marshall's perspective is that the creation of 'an image of an ideal citizenship against which achievements can be measured and towards which aspiration can be directed' evolved when women were still denied or had only just achieved political citizenship and were not participants in the political decision-making process.¹⁸ This raises the issue of the conceptualization of citizenship and what constitutes taken for granted citizenship activities. The image of the ideal citizen which is evident in Marshall and which emerges in power resources analysis is that of the paid worker, generally the organized paid worker, in the public sphere. Indeed, as Pateman points out, the history 'of the welfare state and citizenship (and the manner in which they have been theorized) is bound up with the history of the development of "employment societies"'.¹⁹

The dominant conception of citizenship implies the subordination of particular identities, not only of class, but also of gender and race. Citizenship as a principle of equality is readily contrasted with class, as a principle of inequality, with the implied assumption that the two principles of distribution vary inversely. In contrast to class, gender is based on the recognition of difference, a principle that is not necessarily inconsistent with equality. However, differences associated with biological, social and/or economic conditions may interfere with the translation of formal equality into equality in practice.²⁰

The issue of difference is a key thread within feminist critiques of citizenship analysis; for example, Kathleen B. Jones identifies issues related to difference as one of three dimensions relevant to the development of a theory of citizenship. First, she points out that feminist political discourse recognizes the body as a significant dimension in the definition of citizenship.²¹ This calls attention to the traditional linkage of citizenship with the ability to take part in armed struggle for national defence, the equation of this ability with maleness, and the equation of femaleness with weakness and the need for male protection.²² Several feminist analysts have proposed a conceptual shift from armed defence to empowerment as a key criterion for the exercise of citizenship rights. Such a shift 'unsettles the connection between male bodies and citizenship'.²³ Jones argues that this acknowledgement of the body as a basis of political difference

has implications for the application of the concept of equality as traditionally conceived

In a democratic polity, citizens are meant to enjoy equal individual rights. Still, biological, social, and discursively defined differences make the granting of the same rights to different persons more likely to sustain a hierarchy of rights than uniformity of status.²⁴

This raises the issue of equality of opportunity in the context of inequality of condition. In this regard it is important to recognize the distinction between the achievement of equality in civil rights and its achievement in human or social rights: In the former case equality entails treating everyone the same, since '[e]very individual has the same presumptive right as every other individual to individual autonomy subject only to those limitations the state can justify as reasonable'; in contrast, equality in human rights entails treating people as *equals*, which implies recognizing their differences, since here we are talking of 'individuals in their capacity as members of groups which are disadvantaged for arbitrary reasons'.²⁵

The second thread identified by Jones relates to the conception of political space and the implications for the definition of this space of the recognition that 'the personal is political'. A major consequence of the traditional institutional focus of political analysis has been that women were largely excluded. The recognition of this exclusion, and the associated focus on women's political behaviour, implies a broadening of the concept of political action to include the ways in which political space and political alliances are structured. This has implications for the spatial dimension of citizenship which up to now has been largely institutional and has ignored those political processes associated with movements to transform public consciousness on issues such as sexual harassment, rape, and pornography, which 'are examples of a definition of participation that is focused not on government action but on the reclamation of public space itself'.²⁶

A third theme in feminist political analysis relates to the conception of political participation. Defining participation purely in terms of active participation, and/or interest, in parliamentary politics is likely to under-represent the participation of women, particularly in some countries. These indicators do not include participation in the informal political system of social movements nor participation as client representatives 'in negotiating the content and forms of delivery of their entitlements'.²⁷ Birte Siim has identified these informal political activities as 'power from below' in contrast to participation in formal politics or 'power from above'.²⁸ The incorporation of women into the analysis implies a broadening of what constitutes formally recognized political space and action in order to take into account this power from below.

The recognition of differences in condition associated with gender does not imply a focus on difference in any metaphysical sense nor the construction of gender based norms of citizenship. It does imply a rethinking of the concept of citizenship with the objective of reconciling the achievement of equality with difference in condition associated with structural inequalities. Specifically, it implies an examination of the conception of the ideal citizen and the possible disjunction of formal and *de facto* citizenship rights associated with this conception. I consider the implications for political analysis in a later section.

GENDER AND CITIZENSHIP IN THE SOCIAL DEMOCRATIC WELFARE STATE

Feminist analyses of the social democratic welfare state are instructive since these works relate to the most developed welfare state regime in terms of social rights based on citizenship as opposed to class. Despite this, and the advantaged position of women, there are still significant gender differences in welfare state experience and in the exercise of citizenship rights. This is not meant to imply that the Scandinavian welfare states are identical; what is distinctive about these countries is that women's social and economic position is considerably better than in other OECD countries. My focus is on issues related to labour market participation since this participation is crucial to gender equality and illustrates well the intersection of women's multiple statuses as clients and consumers of welfare services, as employees and as political citizens and signals both opportunity and dependence associated with welfare state developments.

Labour Market Participation, Gender and Citizenship

High female labour force participation is one of the criteria on which welfare state success is measured. Despite this, experience in the Scandinavian countries indicates that high levels of participation may mask some serious problems, namely, a very high level of part-time work and a highly gender segregated labour force. The latter is associated with the same problems as occupational segregation in other countries: Women are concentrated in low wage, low status occupations with relatively few opportunities for training.²⁹ The high level of part-time work reflects the high level of demands on women associated with caring work, primarily child care responsibilities, and notwithstanding clear superiority in OECD terms, the less than adequate levels of child care services.³⁰ Despite wage solidarity and a commitment to equal pay, gender differentials in pay still persist. These are considerably less than those in other OECD countries and

are associated largely with the horizontal and vertical gender segregation of the labour force. The high level of part time work by women also ensures overall lower earnings. Furthermore, insofar as economic poverty exists in Scandinavia it is concentrated among women as heads of households and the main reasons are part-time work and gender segregation of the labour force.³¹

These facts point to some important problems in relation to the image of the ideal worker/citizen and, in particular, in relation to how general interests are defined. The positive consequences for Swedish women associated with the privileged position of workers as a whole in the policy formation process has been identified by Mary Ruggie, yet she argues that 'whenever women's interests could not be articulated in terms of their roles as workers in general or wives/mothers in general, those interests have remained unexpressed and unrealized'.³² Similar conclusions have been reached by other analysts.³³ For example, while identifying the superior position of women in the social democratic welfare state regimes, Borchorst and Siim argue that state policies for gender equality fail to take seriously the problem of combining paid and unpaid work.³⁴ Notwithstanding the fact that the division of labour within households is relatively unchanged and the transfer of most care services to the public sector is partial, paid work is still predicated on the assumption of an ideal worker who has no domestic or care-work responsibilities. In addition, the sexual equality strategy of integrating women into 'non-traditional jobs' has been unsuccessful due to the failure to deal effectively with transforming male-dominated work places to the extent of making them hospitable environments for women.³⁵

The problems identified in relation to labour market participation in social democratic welfare states have implications for the analysis of public policies in all welfare state regimes. The development of a large welfare state is associated with considerable opportunities but also some contradictions for women. The availability of benefits and services facilitates employment in general and a large welfare state creates employment directly in the public sector. This increased labour force participation is achieved at the cost of an increase in the double day of work and possible dependence on state agencies and is associated with increased gender segregation of the labour force. However, there is considerable evidence to indicate that a large welfare state facilitates the political mobilization of women and the possibilities for combating through public policies the negative aspects of current labour force participation patterns.

Helga Hernes argues that 'women's lives are more dependent on and determined by state policies than men's' because of women's greater involvement in reproduction not only in the family, which affects their client status, but as employees in the public sector. In addition, women's lesser incorporation into political organizations,

especially trade unions, means that they do not have the 'same organizational buffer as men between themselves and the authorities that can articulate and defend their interests. This affects their citizen status'.³⁶ Despite the validity of Hernes' argument, it must be recognized that reliance on public policy and state agencies is not necessarily associated with public dependence, as is often suggested in analyses of liberal welfare states. The impact of reliance on state agencies in terms of dependency is likely to be influenced by the criteria for access to benefits and services, the general configuration of policies relating to labour market participation and to social and sexual rights, and the level of access to decision making positions. In addition, dependence on state agencies may be sowing the seeds of its own destruction. Several analysts of social democratic welfare state regimes have argued that the political mobilization of women is facilitated by their ties with the state whereas the mobilization of men was effected through their ties with the market.³⁷ Frances Fox Piven has made a similar argument relating to the political mobilization potential of the much less developed US welfare state.³⁸

Scandinavian experience points to the fact that policies must be examined not only in terms of formal equality but also in terms of their outcome. This means that the possible impact on the exercise of citizenship rights of differences in material and social conditions must be recognized. This implies that gender must be an integral element of welfare state analysis.

CLASS, CITIZENSHIP, GENDER AND WELFARE STATE REGIMES

Welfare state regimes are structured by, and in turn structure, both class and gender. Consequently, both dimensions must be incorporated into a comprehensive analysis of welfare states. How these dimensions are articulated will vary cross-nationally, historically, and depending on past institutional developments. A gender sensitive comparative analysis will not be achieved by focusing exclusively on gender or by adding gender to the power resources framework of analysis. Some key concepts must be re-examined and a broader focus adopted in terms of both independent and dependent variables. The mobilization of power resources is the key independent variable and the welfare state regime concept is the key dependent variable in comparative power resources research. I will discuss each with reference to class, citizenship and gender.

Mobilization of Power Resources, Class, Citizenship and Gender

In considering influences on the development of welfare state regimes the primary focus of most power resources research is on working-

class political mobilization, in particular, the mobilization of workers through trade unions and the associated labour and social democratic party strength. Increasingly, there is an emphasis on the pattern of coalition building and 'the institutionalization of class preferences and political behavior' that has emerged from past reforms.³⁹ In so far as the pattern of coalition building has been considered, the focus has been on coalitions between the working class and farmers in the transition from a rural to an urban society and between the working class and parties supported strongly by the middle class in urbanized societies. The influence of non-party groups, specifically new social movements such as the feminist movement, has generally been ignored.

An exclusive focus on the labour market and mainstream political organizations is not inherently gender-biased but it does largely exclude women and/or fails to recognize the consequences for participation of their intersecting and often contradictory statuses. The right to vote and the right to organize for collective action, which are the principle power resources in democratic politics, are citizenship rights which apply to men and women equally; however, the exercise of participatory rights, both at the trade union and political party level, is constrained by historical precedent and by the individual's statuses within the economy and the family and her/his resources of time and money. There is considerable evidence that these attributes and resources vary by gender.

The feminist critique of citizenship outlined earlier implies the need for a rethinking of conventional political analysis in order to achieve gender balance. A broadening of what constitutes formally recognized political space and action allows for the fact that participation in the political system occurs not only through traditional loci of power but also through bureaucracies, client representative groups and social movements. In relation to public bureaucracies it must be recognized that certain policy developments may be crucial in the creation of possibilities for incorporation of women into the political system. Some feminist analysts have suggested that gender conflict is being institutionalized through public agencies such as Equal Opportunity Commissions whereas class conflict was institutionalized through trade unions, political parties and corporatist institutions.⁴⁰ This points to the importance of considering institutional structures and legacies and the cross-national and historical variation in the relative importance of different institutional structures.

A comprehensive indicator of women's possible impact on the policy process must include not only a measure of control over power positions but also a measure of influence over the policy agenda through women's caucuses within political parties and trade unions and by the organized feminist movement. There are no easy measures on which to make comparative assessments of the political effectiveness of

women's movements; however, qualitative differences relating to the strength, unity in terms of issues, lobbying activity and coalition potential of the movement in various countries can be identified.⁴¹ In terms of the unity of the feminist movement on issues, the most important are those that come within the broad heading of sexual politics – abortion, violence against women, incest, pornography – and those related to the 'organization of daily life' – the length of the working day, child care, pay and employment equity.⁴²

In summary, there are several implications associated with the incorporation of gender into the analysis of the mobilization of power resources: In addition to recognizing the gender composition of mainstream political organizations the institutional legacy must be evaluated in terms of its conduciveness to facilitating or hindering the incorporation of women into the political system and to effecting change through corporatist institutions, policy bodies such as Pay or Employment Equity Agencies, and client representative associations. Furthermore, the influence of new social movements, such as the feminist movement, must be assessed in terms of their ability to influence the policy agenda and form coalitions with mainstream political organizations.

Welfare State Regimes, Class, Citizenship and Gender

Numerous studies within the comparative analysis framework have demonstrated the value of the welfare state regime concept, but, with the exception of Mary Ruggie's analysis of policies relating to working women in Britain and Sweden, none has incorporated gender into its analysis.⁴³ The concern of this section is with how the welfare state regime concept can be modified to incorporate gender within a comparative analysis framework. From this point of view four questions are important: First, are social rights, as reflected in the criteria governing access to benefits and services, gender-linked and do these criteria contribute to the stratification of the population by gender? Second, are the social and sexual rights of individuals protected and enhanced by public policy? Third, since labour force participation is central to gender equality, is it facilitated by public policy? Fourth, does the policy process facilitate equal access to decision making roles and the ability to exercise participatory rights? These questions relate essentially to personal autonomy and insulation from personal and/or public dependence. Just as the level of de-commodification is a key to understanding differences amongst welfare states so is the level of insulation from personal and/or public dependence. The extent of de-commodification varies depending on the range of services which insulate individuals from the pressure of the labour market and the extent to which these services are accessible as citizenship rights. Similarly, the level of personal autonomy varies

according to the range of services which insulate individuals from involuntary economic dependence on family members and/or involuntary dependence on state agencies. The absence of involuntary economic dependence does not imply the absence of interdependence. Whereas interdependence implies choice, equality and reciprocity, involuntary economic dependence implies an unequal power relationship and the absence of choice. As Ruth Lister has argued full interdependence is possible only when involuntary economic dependence is absent.⁴⁴

A central element of insulation from dependence is the extent to which public services are available as citizenship rights as opposed to a dependence-enhancing income and/or means-tested basis. Several recent studies have pointed to the gender component in access to benefits criteria. In particular, there is considerable evidence that women are disproportionately concentrated in the social assistance category of benefit recipients, irrespective of welfare state regime. In contrast, men are concentrated in the employment related social insurance benefits category. Women's representation in the direct social insurance rights category is increasing with the increase in female labour force participation but their concentration in lower level jobs is associated with lower level benefits and, consequently, a greater exposure to economic dependence than is experienced by men. While in theory the citizenship based access criterion is the most egalitarian and least stratifying, it may also have a gender stratification impact if the level of benefits is low. Since women are less likely to have access to the resources necessary for additional private coverage they may be forced into private dependent relationships or into reliance on supplementary social assistance. One implication of these patterns is that the quality of social rights may be associated with the maintenance or lessening of dependence and that a benefit structure may secure de-commodification for some while enhancing dependence for others.

Rights not directly linked to the labour market have been relatively neglected in comparative analyses of welfare state regimes. The analysis by Pippa Norris of the position of women in western democracies is an exception since she does consider the social position of women and its relationship to their economic position.⁴⁵ Specifically, she examines cross-national variation and influences on abortion, family planning, maternity services, child care and higher education. These issues and others related to social and sexual rights such as violence against women, incest and pornography, have been central to feminist campaigns for gender equality. This focus is based on the recognition that personal autonomy, especially within families, can only be achieved when social and sexual rights are strongly guaranteed at a formal level and can be realized at a practical level. In addition, changes in productive relations are severely limited from the

point of view of gender equality if not accompanied by changes in the conditions of reproduction and in the institutional context within which reproduction and production are articulated.

De-commodification is associated with a focus on entitlements and social rights which protect individuals, irrespective of gender, from total dependence on the labour market for survival. This protection from forced participation, irrespective of age, health conditions, family status, availability of suitable employment, is obviously of major importance to both men and women. However, before de-commodification becomes an issue for individuals a crucial first step is access to the labour market. The de-commodification concept does not take into account the fact that not all demographic groups are equally commodified and that this may be a source of inequality. Limitation of access to the labour market may be the result of systemic discrimination or inequality of condition, such as that associated with caring responsibilities. Since both labour force participation and quality of employment are gender-linked and constrained by caring responsibilities, which are in turn gender-linked, those entitlements which facilitate labour force participation are of crucial importance to the economic and social rights of women and in the mitigation and/or prevention of dependence. Services related to 'the organization of daily life' may facilitate or hinder labour force participation.⁴⁶ Policies relating to the length and flexibility of the working day, availability of child care and facilities for caring for other dependents, employment and pay equity, maternity and parental leave, training and re-training services facilitate or make difficult the articulation of production and reproduction or labour market and family. Public policies in these areas illustrate clearly the intersection of state, market and family. There is considerable evidence that the state is of particular importance for women's employment; its action or inaction may facilitate, hinder or be neutral in regard to the level and quality of labour market participation.⁴⁷

In considering the quality of labour market participation it is important to note the distinction made by Helga Hernes between women's policy and gender equality policy. The former 'is concerned with the redistribution of goods, services and transfers' and refers to traditional social policy aimed at the improvement of the situation of women and children. In contrast, gender equality policy is concerned with 'the redistribution of status and social power'.⁴⁸ These policies relate essentially to access to employment and decision making at senior levels. This implies, for example, that the focus of policy is not just labour market participation but the quality and conditions of that participation. Consequently, equal opportunity policies become crucial aspects of the social policy framework. This approach to public policy implies that both inequality of condition and systemic discrimination are recognized in the policy formation process. The objective is

not just equality of opportunity but the change of institutional structures which give rise to and sustain structured gender inequalities. Since policies with a gender equality focus are directed to making women the subjects, not just the objects, of social policy, the realization of participatory citizenship rights becomes an objective of social policy. This is of course crucial to the lessening of dependence and the achievement of autonomy.

In summary, de-commodification is a central concept in the analysis of welfare state regimes and its extent is dependent on the quality of social rights, which in turn, through the criteria for access to benefits, is an active force in the stratification of societies not only in class but in gender terms. However, the gender dimension of de-commodification does not exhaust the stratification of social relations by gender associated with welfare state activities or their absence. A gender sensitive analysis of welfare state regimes entails not only an examination of benefits and services in terms of their gender stratification effects but a focus on the way in which productive and reproductive activities are articulated and on the range and quality of social and sexual rights. In other words, the concept of de-commodification must be supplemented by the concept of personal autonomy or insulation from dependence, both personal dependence on family members and/or public dependence on the state agencies.

CONCLUSIONS

Major contributions to our understanding of the welfare state have been made by both the power resources and feminist research traditions. However, neither is adequate to achieve a comprehensive analysis of welfare state regimes. Key insights of the mobilization of power resources analysis relate to the possibilities inherent in the political system for modification of market inequities. These possibilities are realized through the mobilization of power resources by the working class and through the formation of political coalitions around the objective of shifting the principle of stratification and the basis of social rights from class to citizenship. In this analysis, citizenship, as a principle of equality, is juxtaposed against class as a principle of inequality with the implied assumption that the two principles vary inversely and to the same extent for all citizens. One of the key insights arising from feminist analysis is that citizenship rights may have different implications for men and women because of structured gender inequalities. This is true in terms of social rights and also in terms of participatory rights. The recognition of difference in condition associated with gender does not imply a need for gender based norms of citizenship; it does imply a rethinking of the concept of citizenship with the objective of reconciling the achievement of

equality with difference in condition. This highlights the distinction between equality in civil rights, which entails treating everyone the same, and equality in human rights, which entails treating people as equals and consequently recognizing differences in condition due to structural inequalities.

The incorporation of gender into the analysis has implications for the key concepts of power resources research, in particular, the mobilization of power resources and the welfare state regime concepts. Mobilization of power resources research has traditionally focused on class and mainstream political organizations. A comprehensive analysis of political processes necessitates the incorporation of gender into this analysis and a broadening of the concept of the political to take into account the exercise of power through bureaucratic organizations and the influence of social movements and client representative groups.

De-commodification is a central concept in the analysis of welfare state regimes; it refers to insulation from the pressures of the labour market. I argue that this must be supplemented by the concept of personal autonomy. This refers to insulation from personal and public dependence and is central to unravelling the complexity of the relationships amongst state, market and family. It is noteworthy that power resources research has concentrated on the relationship between the labour market and the state with little attention to the family aspect of this tripartite relationship. The concept of personal autonomy, or insulation from personal and public dependence, remedies this imbalance since it relates directly to the articulation of relations of reproduction and production. This is the area where the contradictions associated with welfare state development, namely the simultaneous increase in opportunity and dependence, are likely to be most evident.

The concern with the incorporation of gender in this paper is not meant to down-play the importance of class or of race; it is based on a recognition that capitalist societies and welfare state regimes are structured by both class and gender, and in some cases by race, in historically specific interacting ways and that the restructuring of the welfare state is largely a restructuring around gender. However, an exclusive focus on gender is not adequate. A comparative approach across regime types which incorporates both class and gender and their historically specific interaction is necessary. Such an approach implies that in comparing welfare states, the status of individuals as providers and consumers of welfare services, as employees and political citizens must be considered in addition to their client status. It must be asked how the relative dominance of the different statuses varies for both men and women across welfare states and over time within particular welfare states.

The focus on the Scandinavian countries has indicated that,

notwithstanding considerable lessening of the pervasiveness of class as a basis for social rights in social democratic welfare state regimes, gender differences are still evident – they are probably more easily identifiable because of the lessening of class differences. However, the potential for challenging these differences exists. This potential has been developed largely through the mobilization of women through the welfare state and is likely to be realized through an increase in their participatory rights. According to Hernes the challenge for the welfare state is now 'to design a gender equality policy that allows for pluralism and gender difference while guaranteeing equality'.⁴⁹ The challenge for comparative analysts is to identify the determinants of such policies and the reasons for differences amongst welfare state regimes.

(Date accepted – February 1992)

Julia S. O'Connor,
Department of Sociology,
McMaster University, Canada

NOTES

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1. M. Rein, 'Women, Employment and Social Welfare' in Klein and O'Higgins, *The Future of Welfare*, Oxford, Basil Blackwell, 1985, pp. 37–58.

2. J. Quadagno, 'Race, Class, and Gender in the U.S. Welfare State: Nixon's Failed Family Assistance Plan', *American Sociological Review*, 55, 1990, pp. 11–28.

3. G. Esping-Andersen, 'The Three Political Economies of the Welfare State', *Canadian Review of Sociology and Anthropology*, 26, 1, 1989, p. 20.

4. G. Esping-Andersen, *The Three Worlds of Welfare Capitalism*, Princeton, Princeton University Press, 1990, pp. 26–9.

5. *Ibid.*; J. S. O'Connor, 'Welfare Expenditure and Policy Orientation in Canada in Comparative Perspective' *Canadian Review of Sociology and Anthropology*, 26, 1, 1989, pp. 127–50; Palme, J. 'Pension Regimes in Transition: A Comparative Analysis', presented at International Sociological Association Meetings, Madrid, July, 1990. F. G. Castles and

D. Mitchell 'Three Worlds of Welfare Capitalism of Four?' The Australian National University Public Policy Program Discussion Paper No. 21, 1990.

6. Studies of liberal welfare state regimes include C. Andrew, 'Women and the Welfare State', *Canadian Journal of Political Science*, XVII: 4, 1984, pp. 667–83; Baldock and Cass (eds), *Women, Social Welfare and the State in Australia*, Sydney, George Allen and Unwin, 1983; N. Fraser, 'Women, Welfare and The Politics of Need' in *Unruly Practices*, Minneapolis, University of Minnesota Press, 1989, pp. 144–6; E. Wilson, *Women and the Welfare State*, London, Tavistock, 1977. Comparative studies include P. Norris, *Politics and Sexual Equality The Comparative Position of Women in Western Democracies*, Boulder, Colorado, Rienner, 1987 and M. Ruggie, *The State and Working Women A Comparative Study of Britain and Sweden*, Princeton, Princeton University Press, 1984. Several Scandinavian studies are discussed throughout this paper.

7. T. H. Marshall, 'Citizenship and Social Class' in *Class, Citizenship and Social Development*, Westport, Connecticut, Greenwood Press Publishers, 1964, pp. 65–122.

8. *Ibid.*, p. 96.
9. J. M. Barbalet, *Citizenship Rights, Struggles and Class Inequality*, Minneapolis, University of Minnesota Press, 1988; B. S. Turner, *Citizenship and Capitalism*, London, Allen and Unwin, 1986.
10. Bryan Turner, *op. cit.*, pp. 85–100, is a rare exception to the social class emphasis in that he recognizes the role of new social movements, especially the feminist movement, in the expansion of citizenship rights.
11. W. Korpi, *The Democratic Class Struggle*, London, Routledge and Kegan Paul, 1983; G. Esping-Andersen, *Politics Against Markets*, Princeton, Princeton University Press, 1985.
12. Marshall *op. cit.*, pp. 78–81, p. 84.
13. *Ibid.*
14. *Ibid.*, p. 91.
15. B. Nelson, 'Women's Poverty and Women's Citizenship' in Gelpi, Hartsock, Novak and Strober, *Women and Poverty*, Chicago, The University of Chicago Press, 1984 pp. 209–31; N. Fraser, *op. cit.*
16. Carole Pateman cites the example of black people in the United States. C. Pateman, 'The Patriarchal Welfare State' in Gutmann, *Democracy and the Welfare State*, Princeton, Princeton University Press, 1988, pp. 231–60.
17. Barbalet, *op. cit.*
18. Marshall, *op. cit.*, p. 84.
19. Pateman, *op. cit.*, p. 237.
20. The relationship between equality and difference has been the subject of considerable debate amongst feminists over the past decade. See J. W. Scott, 'Deconstructing Equality-Versus-Difference: Or, the Uses of Poststructuralist Theory for Feminism' in Hirsch and Fox Keller, *Conflicts in Feminism*, New York, Routledge, 1990, pp. 134–48. Also see C. L. Bacchi, *Same Difference*, London, Allen and Unwin, 1990.
21. K. B. Jones 'Citizenship in a Woman-Friendly Polity' *Signs*, 15, 4, 1990, p. 786.
22. Pateman, *op. cit.*, Jones, *op. cit.*
23. *Ibid.*, p. 787.
24. *Ibid.*, p. 798.
25. R. Abella 'Equality and human rights in Canada: Coping with the new Isms' *University Affairs*, June/July 1991, p. 22.
26. Jones, *op. cit.*, p. 803.
27. H. Hernes 'The Welfare State Citizenship of Scandinavian Women' in Jones and Jonasdottir, *The Political Interests of Gender*, London, Sage, 1988, p. 198.
28. B. Siim, 'Towards a Feminist Re-thinking of the Welfare State' in Jones and Jonasdottir, *op. cit.*, p. 176.
29. T. Skard and E. Haavio-Mannila 'Equality Between the Sexes – Myth or Reality in Norden?' in Graubard, *Norden – The Passion for Equality*, Oslo, Norwegian University Press, 1986, pp. 176–99.
30. *Ibid.*
31. H. Hernes, *Welfare State and Woman Power Essays in State Feminism*, Oslo, Norwegian University Press, 1987, p. 32.
32. M. Ruggie, 'Gender, Work and Social Progress' in Jenson, Hagen and Reddy, *Feminization of the Labor Force*, New York, Oxford University Press, 1989, p. 186.
33. Skard and Haavio-Manilla, *op. cit.*; A. Borchorst and B. Siim 'Women and the advanced welfare state – a new kind of patriarchal power?' in Showstack Sassoon, *Women and the State: The shifting boundaries of public and private*, London, Hutchinson, 1987.
34. *Ibid.*, p. 131.
35. *Ibid.*, p. 143.
36. Hernes, *op. cit.*, pp. 37–8.
37. *Ibid.*, p. 160.
38. F. Fox Piven, 'Ideology and the State: Women, Power and the Welfare State' in Gordon, *Women, the State and Welfare*, Madison, Wisconsin, The University of Wisconsin Press, 1990, pp. 250–64.
39. Esping-Andersen, 1990, *op. cit.*, 32.
40. D. Dahlerup, 'Confusing concepts – confusing reality: a theoretical discussion of the patriarchal state' in Showstack Sassoon, p. 110.
41. See for example, Katzenstein and McClurg Mueller, *The Women's Movements of the United States and Western Europe*, Philadelphia, Temple University Press and Dahlerup, *The New Women's Movement*, London, Sage.
42. Hernes, *op. cit.*, p. 47.
43. Mary Ruggie does not use the term

welfare state regime but she characterizes the British and Swedish welfare states as liberal and corporatist welfare models, respectively, 'in terms of their frames of reference for state intervention', (Ruggie, 1984, *op. cit.*, p. 13). See note 5 above for references to analyses using a mobilization of power resources approach. In an analysis of Australian social policy Sheila Shaver has extended the social policy regime concept to include gender. Shaver identifies three key dimensions of state/gender relations: (i) the gender basis of legal personhood, (ii) labour and the relations between state and economy and (iii) family and reproduction. While the framework adopted in this paper is different, issues related to the first of Shaver's categories are discussed in Sec-

tion II on Gender and Citizenship; issues related to her second and third categories are discussed in this and the previous section. S. Shaver, 'Gender, Social Policy Regimes and the Welfare State', presented at Annual Meetings of the American Sociological Association, Washington, D.C., 11–15 August, 1990.

44. R. Lister, 'Women, Economic Dependency and Citizenship', *Journal of Policy* 19(4), 1990, pp. 446–7.

45. Norris, *op. cit.*

46. Hernes, *op. cit.*, p. 47.

47. M. Ruggie, 1984, *op. cit.*; C. O'Donnell and P. Hall, *Getting Equal*, London, Allen and Unwin.

48. Hernes, *op. cit.*, p. 26.

49. Hernes, *op. cit.*, p. 163.